Back to Africa Movement:
The Persistence of Racism from "White" America to "Civilized" Liberia

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> Racism is man's gravest threat to man—the maximum of hatred for a minimum of reason.
>
> Abraham Joshua Heschel, *Religion and Race* (1963)

Abstract

The Back to Africa movement, according to the American Colonization Society, sought to provide free African Americans "refuge in the land of their fathers" by relieving them from the disadvantages they faced in a slave-holding and segregationist nation. In reality, however, the movement primarily served as a means of clearing a "disturbing and dangerous" portion of society with few African Americans returning to the regions from which their ancestors actually came. This essay examines the cause, process, and aftermath of the Back to Africa movement with particular emphasis on how racism heavily influenced, and often altered, each stage of this mass emigration. In doing so, it discusses the racially conflicted landscape of America in the early nineteenth century as well as analyzes how the African American emigrants carried to the West coast of Africa "the evils of racism." Armed with this knowledge, this essay recounts a paradoxical history of the "evolution of privilege," one that begins in the antebellum South and persists through twentieth century Liberia.[1]

Introduction: A Solution

In 1816, a Presbyterian minister from New Jersey named Robert Finley asserted that "everything connected with [the blacks'] condition, including their color, is against them."[2] Indeed, although the early nineteenth century witnessed an increased emancipation of slaves, the "post-emancipation" society did not allow for a meaningful, *de facto* freedom for blacks. Rather, the former slaves faced institutionalized discrimination and lynching while many whites still disparaged them as a "subordinate and inferior class of beings, who had no rights."[3] Seeing little hope for free blacks within America, Finley found a solution to their plight on the West coast of Africa: relocation of African Americans into the "land of their fathers" where they "might set up a government and society of [their] own."[4] This idea soon grew into the Back to Africa movement.

Despite the evident fallacy in Finley's words—depicting Africa, the vast continent consisting of countless ethnic tribes, as one homogenous "home" to all blacks—his proposal became reality with the establishment of the *Society for the Colonization of Free People of Color of America* (commonly known as the American Colonization Society) in December 1816. Approved by influential leaders including Speaker of the House Henry Clay, General Andrew Jackson, and Congressman Daniel Webster, this philanthropic community planned "for the restoration to Africa of her stolen children" by purchasing land along the Cape Mesurado from native chieftains and assisting with "the construction of homes and forts, the acquisition of farm implements, [and] the defense of settlers."[5] By 1865, the Society transported across the Atlantic approximately twelve thousand African Americans who established the first and oldest African Republic: Liberia.[6]

However, this short glimpse at African American history leaves several unanswered questions. Why did Finley's proposal

gain popularity among white elites, many of whom were slaveholding Southern politicians who detested the emancipation of blacks? How did African Americans perceive and respond to this solution of seeking "refuge in the land of their fathers"? What methods did the American Colonization Society employ to establish a settlement in a distant land originally occupied by indigenous tribes? And, how did an immigrant community of twelve thousand African Americans found an African Republic?

Although the members of the Colonization Society seemed to aspire to benevolence, their true motivation stemmed from racism; the white majority, disturbed by an emerging free black population, sought to prevent the former slaves from integrating into the American society, and the Back to Africa movement emerged as a viable solution. The process by which the Society acquired territory from native tribes often involved violence as emigrated blacks capitalized on superior military technology to reinforce their dominance over the "uncivilized savages." Then, ironically, the African Americans who returned to their "homeland" justified their authority and governance over indigenous tribes by imitating the very practices of racism and Christian superiority employed by White Americans.

Back to Africa: Racism in Nineteenth Century America

The Back to Africa movement was a culmination of plans proposed by eminent leaders throughout the late eighteenth century who advocated the establishment of "black states…in Louisiana, along the Missouri River, [and] in the Pacific Northwest."[7] For instance, Thomas Jefferson supported the creation of "a black territory west of the Mississippi that would be encouraged to achieve statehood."[8] The basis of this argument, however, was a segregationist notion that "blacks and whites could not live together peaceably in a free society."[9] Indeed, Jefferson wrote in his 1782 book "Notes on the State of Virginia" that *color* was "the

foundation of a greater or less share of beauty" between the white and black race, describing how the "fine mixtures of red and white [were] preferable to that eternal monotony [and] immoveable veil of black which covers all the emotions."[10] These words epitomized the long-held belief of the white majority that blacks were an inferior race that required close supervision under generous masters. Nevertheless, Jefferson's paternalistic (but racist) viewpoint was "still far too liberal for most of his contemporaries" who asserted that blacks, "as near the anthropoid apes as any of the savage races of mankind," deserved the "lowest," most inhumane treatment.[11,12]

With the dawn of the nineteenth century, an increasing number of freed slaves began to threaten this traditional white mastery over "the negro slave": the population of free blacks doubled over three decades (1790-1820) to sixty thousand with more than half living in Southern States.[13] Public opinion soon became polarized on the issue of black emancipation: whereas radical abolitionists actively supported freeing slaves through secret routes and safe houses, Southern politicians were alarmed by the presence of free blacks and their potential to instigate rebellion among their more than half a million "enslaved brothers."[14] Thus, the idea of sending blacks to Africa surfaced as a compromise between the two groups.

In reality, however, the movement primarily served as a means of clearing a "disturbing and dangerous" portion of society with few, if any, African Americans returning to the regions from which their ancestors actually came.[15] In his speech to the members of the American Colonization Society in 1816, Henry Clay underscored the dual significance of the Back to Africa movement: "[this noble cause] proposes to rid our own country of a useless and pernicious…portion of its population [while also] spreading…civilized life [to] a benighted portion of the globe."[16] Clay's words not only reveal how a racist ideology mainly

motivated the seemingly well-intentioned movement, but also highlight how, in the views of Americans, Africa was an inferior land full of "barbaric" idolaters; the movement was not an act of kindness, but a selfish decision to eliminate a potential source of unrest. In fact, while black emigrants hoped that a new life in Africa would "hold forth something [better] than the hard calluses and sweaty brows of the past," they were eventually forced to contend with the harsher conditions of the African climate.[17] For instance, torrential rain[18] and unfamiliar pests destroyed crops in plantations, while outbreaks of malaria often restricted outdoor farming.

Hence, to call the Back to Africa movement "a repatriation" is a misnomer.[19] Among the twelve thousand black immigrants to Liberia, over six thousands were "old or unwanted slaves...freed on the condition they leave America."[20] Another significant portion of black settlers came from slaves intercepted by the United States Navy in illegal slave trades following the 1808 Ban on Slave Importation and the 1819 Steerage Act which authorized armed vessels to regulate exchange of slaves in the Atlantic.[21] In both cases, blacks were not freed for solely humane reasons; rather, the Back to Africa movement was a selfishly calculated choice by the white community to expel unwanted blacks to an unknown land that was misleadingly called "home." Accordingly, while initial Liberian settlements had been established as early as 1822, the United States government did not recognize Liberia as a nation until 1862 due to objection to "receiving negro diplomatic representatives."[22]

A "White" Movement: African American Protest against the Colonization Society

Although white politicians regarded the relocation of blacks as a positive, African American intellectuals heavily opposed the American Colonization Society's plan, arguing that the "soil which

gave them birth was their only true and veritable home."[23] James Forten and Russel Perrot, leaders of Philadelphia's free African American community, issued a joint address in 1817 which challenged the hidden motives of the Society and emphasized how blacks were "as much entitled to the protection of the laws of [America] as any other element of its population"[24]:

> Relieved from the miseries of slavery…we have no wish to separate from our present homes, for any purpose whatever. Contented with our present situation and condition, we are desirous of increasing the prosperity, by honest efforts, and by the use of the opportunities, for their improvement, which the constitution and laws allow…
>
> Unprepared by education and a knowledge of the principles of our blessed religion, for their new situation, those who will thus become colonized will thus be surrounded by every suffering which can affect the members of the human family…
>
> Year after year will witness those means to assure safety and submission among their slaves, and the southern masters will colonize only those whom it may be dangerous to keep among them. The bondage of a large portion of our members will thus be rendered perpetual.[25]

This speech recognizes that the relocation of free blacks would strengthen institutions of slavery by stifling disobedience and rebellion in America; since educated free blacks were the "last glimmer of hope" to advance and uplift their traditionally suppressed race, their removal would "throw an impenetrable gloom over their… most reasonable prospects."[26]

Another account by abolitionist William J. Watkins pinpoints the oxymoronic nature of "philanthropic slaveholder":

> A philanthropic slaveholder is as great a solecism as a sober drunkard. If these gentlemen disavow being actuated by interested motives, and would have us to think favorably of them and their proceedings, they must commence their labor of love by striking at the root of the great and growing evil; —they must commence by proclaiming deliverances to their own captives; —they must open (to the extent of their power and influence) the prison doors of those that are bound, and set at liberty those that are bruised.
>
> Until this shall have been done, or at least commenced, we shall continue to question the genuineness of their benevolence.[27]

In his argument, Watkins presents the implicit contradiction between the rhetoric and reality of the Society; the members who, in public, claimed to be interested in improving the black condition, privately prospered through the exploitation of slavery and reinforcement of racism. Such an evident irony reveals how a solution to black mistreatment lay within America rather than thousands of miles across the ocean; the Society was not the solution to the blacks' problem, but rather the Society was the problem.

Consistent with these views, public meetings hosted by black leaders and abolitionists across Northern cities including Baltimore, Boston, District of Columbia, Hartford, Nantucket, and New York condemned and resisted the furtherance of the Back to Africa movement.[28] In fact, some African American communities even stigmatized any blacks "accepting the offer of the [Society] as an enemy of his race."[29] During the Third Annual Convention of the Freed Colored People in 1833, "59 representatives of the free people of color from eight different states" led by African American abolitionist James Forten drafted resolutions that

rejected all plans for deportation, insisting that they as "Americans by birth, pledged never to leave their native land."[30]

In Southern States, free blacks were not nearly as vocal in their opposition. However, their relative silence can be attributed to the more prevalent threats of violence against African Americans in those regions; blacks who challenged the American Colonization Society risked being assaulted or even lynched, "especially [since] the movement was being promoted by some of the leading white people of [the South]."[31] Overall, free African Americans did not perceive the Back to Africa movement as a generous gift, but instead took offence at the underlying prejudice.

Statistically, the colonization movement only transported a small proportion of the free black population. According to the United States Census of 1850 and 1860, the nation had 434,495 and 488,070 free persons of color respectively.[32] However, reports of the American Colonization Society state that only 7,836 people were sent out to Liberia until 1852 (1.8% of the 434,495 people in the 1850 Census), and during the first thirteen years of colonial settlement (1820-1833), less than 3,000 colored persons had taken part in the Back to Africa movement.[33] This data demonstrates how a vast majority of the free black population did not join or advocate relocation to Liberia, reaffirming how the plan was mostly driven by the false assumption that whites knew what was best for blacks. Ultimately, whether the Back to Africa movement's purpose had been to clear unwanted threats or free an oppressed sector of the population, the "movement was a failure" with "few leading [African Americans daring] to support the enterprise."[34]

Crossing of Two Cultures: Military Enforcement and the Onset of Cultural Racism

It is necessary now to shift focus from an analysis of the movement's motives to an examination of its implications in the West African coast. Following its establishment in 1816, the Society successfully received a hundred-thousand-dollar grant from the United States Congress, along with the frigate *Elizabeth*, which had carried the original eighty three settlers (a group comprised mostly of free African Americans) to the coasts of the British Colony of Sierra Leone.[35] It is important to note that the first group of immigrants to Africa was escorted by the naval force USS Cyane at the orders of President James Monroe. The initial settlement of Sherbro Island (est. 1820), however, suffered from outbreaks of malaria and long periods of famine which forced surviving settlers to leave the island.[36] After several attempts to found permanent settlements, the Society "purchased" land along the Cape Mesurado in 1822; this coastal region was named Monrovia after the President and served as the nucleus of the settler's gradual expansion into the hinterland.[37]

According to documents printed by the American Colonization Society, the purchase did not involve any violence as "wise [chiefs, who] recognized [their] need to respect the name [and power] of the United States willingly signed away people's land" for "300 dollars-worth of musket, tobacco, gunpowder, clothing [and] rum."[38,39] However, given that the Society "widely advertised [the] humanitarian benefits" of their movement to please private donors—mainly philanthropists and religious leaders—such an account lacks objectivity.[40] In fact, most accounts of Liberian history suggest that "aggressive actions [of the settlers] resulted in a less than honorable beginning for the Society."[41] In particular, agents dispatched by the organization, namely Lieutenant Robert Stockton, "presented [their] pistol at the head [of chiefs]" who were uncooperative to negotiate treaties, "threatening to kill [them] if [they] did not sell land to the [Society]."[42,43] Thus, contrary to what the Society's documents

suggest, it would appear that gunpowder played a crucial role in inciting fear among local inhabitants who were forced to acquiesce to an unwanted arrangement: “every gun converts a heathen…the power of gunpowder is the power of civilization; in the mind of the untutored heathen, it is divinity personified.”[44]

In addition to gunpowder, the United States Navy also contributed significantly to the acquisition and expansion of territory for the settlers. As seen in the presence of the USS Cyane, American naval forces had “advanced the interests and protected the rights of the settlers” from the very onset of the Back to Africa movement.[45] This trend continued until the late nineteenth century with Navy commanders outwardly supporting the termination of the slave trade among native chiefs. Navy squadrons coerced indigenous tribes to “sign treaties of amity and commerce” by submitting their territories to the settlers’ authority under the pretext of protection against “powerful, slave-raiding tribes.”[46] In cases when tribes such as the Bopolu, Grebo, and Kru resisted, naval officers aided military conquests to forcibly acquire territories.[47] Indeed, although settlers were heavily outnumbered by indigenous tribes, their possession of superior weapons enabled effective warfare against the tribal people who fought with spears and knives.[48] Overall, the “American gun [was] a most powerful ally to the American missionary.”[49]

On the other hand, under the justification of spreading Christianity and Civilization, the settlers secured their dominance by establishing “Cultural Racism,” which was later developed to limit the political participation of “inferior” natives. Although African Americans had a slightly brighter skin color than natives due to their mixed ancestry, race was not a defining criterion for subordination.[50] Rather, culture and one’s affiliation to Western society, became integral factors that distinguished “superior” settlers from “satanic” tribes: “Like the master with the slaves, the [settlers] were ‘those who know’ carrying truth to the native.”[51]

For instance, retaining a strong connection to their American identity, settlers favored Western dresses, houses, and food—particularly "American-grown rice, large quantities of which they imported annually," over African goods such as "country rice grown…in the hinterlands."[52] Moreover, African Americans abstained from marrying with the native population, considering it "exceedingly disreputable."[53]

This sentiment was further exemplified when African American settlers proclaimed the independence of the Republic of Liberia in July 1847 at a convention held in Monrovia by adopting a Constitution and a Declaration of Independence modeled after those of the United States. The documents described the purpose for which Liberia was founded, outlined fundamental principles by which the nation would be regulated, and, most importantly, made Liberia the only African nation to have self-proclaimed independence without any revolt against an imperial force.

> We, the people of the Republic of Liberia, were originally inhabitants of the United States of North America. In some parts of that country we were debarred by law from all rights and privileges of man— in other parts, public sentiment, more powerful than law, frowned us down…
>
> We recognize in all men certain inalienable rights; among these are life, liberty, and the right to acquire, possess, enjoy, and defend property…Every people have a right to institute a government, and to choose and adopt that system, or form of it, which in their opinion will most effectively accomplish these objects, and secure their happiness, which does not interfere with the just rights of others.[54]

It is clear from the document that the settlers emphasized the importance of ensuring "every person's inalienable right," as they hoped to overcome the narrow definition of "men" in the American

Declaration of Independence. However, this declaration also included the settler's belief that Liberia was "the land of God" as the "beneficent Creator…preserved this place and brought [his people] here."[55]

> Liberia is already the happy home of thousands who were once the doomed victims of oppressions; and, if left unmolested to go on with her natural and spontaneous growth…she will throw open wider and yet a wider door for thousands who are now looking with an anxious eye for some land of rest.
>
> The native African bowing down with us before the altar of the living God, declares that from us, feeble as we are, the light of Christianity has gone forth, while upon that curse of curses, the slave trade, a deadly blight has fallen, as far as our influence extends.[56]

The spirit of this document resembles "Manifest Destiny," but with the added goal of spreading Christianity, as well as Civilization, to non-believers. As such, the Declaration of Independence not only justifies a mandate for expansion of Liberian territory beyond original coastal settlements, but also affirms the African American settlers' contemptuous perception of the natives.

Eventually, ties between the two nations strengthened when the United States recognized the Republic of Liberia on September 23, 1862 and subsequently signed a treaty of commerce and navigation on October 25 of the same year.[57] In particular, Article VIII of the treaty granted the United States government permission to "lend [military] aid as may be required" when "the government of the Republic of Liberia should not be able to bring [violence by the original inhabitants] to justice."[58] Commodore Robert Wilson Shufeldt, who commanded the U.S.S Ticonderoga on a mission to Liberia in 1878, sought to establish a permanent naval base on the coast and outlined the parental responsibility that America had in

defending "the infant Republic of Liberia" which lay on the "confines of barbarism": "if Liberia is a weak and myopic child, it is ours…to encourage her heart and to lead her by the hand until age shall bring strength to her feet and clearness to vision."[59]

Overall, through military enforcement and the cultural racism which justified it, the relationship between Americo-Liberians and natives became essentially that of colonialism. As a result of their military expansion, the settlers claimed jurisdiction over an "entire 600 miles coastline from the Sherbro River on the west to the San Pedro River on the east, and between 150 and 250 miles inland, and even onto the River Niger" by 1850—a forceful intrusion similar to the methods later employed by European imperialist forces during the late nineteenth century Scramble for Africa (McLain, 221).[60,61]

Meanwhile, the "wholesale harassment of the African peoples by the Liberian Government" was particularly inhumane, even when compared to that of the British and French."[62] For instance, the Liberian government obligated indigenous people to labor "as much as nine months" for unpaid public projects (namely, road construction), taxed each tribe to raise government revenue[63], and refused to acknowledge the Birthright Citizenship of the "taxed native" until they became "Christianized and Civilized."[64,65] Behind this rhetoric, however, was an underlying fear that the natives, who greatly outnumbered Americo-Liberians[66], would control the government over time. Moreover, natives suffered countless injustices: legislatures banned intermarriage between Liberians and tribesmen while bestowing Liberian employers "unregulated power…to fine [and abuse] their [native] employees."[67] In contrast, government officials, who seldom paid taxes, did not provide any welfare, including schools or hospitals, in return, merely satisfying their private interests with extorted money: "the Liberian authorities refused to effect genuine reforms, knowing

that they subsisted by exploitation of the Africans, and that to stop the exploitation would undermine the privileged position of settler ruling class."[68] In the end, Liberians had created a system in Africa similar to the "very one against which [they] had rebelled in America."[69]

Conclusion: A Paradox

In sum, while the seal of Liberia reads "The Love of Liberty Brought Us Here," the initial creation and subsequent development of the settlement suggest otherwise. In particular, white Americans were primarily motivated to deport African Americans to retain traditional white mastery over the "negro" slave. Paradoxically, the smaller number of African American settlers in Liberia in a way reproduced the racist American colonial system and denied the political rights of natives who accounted for the vast majority of the nation's population. Indeed, in his assessment of Liberia's cultural racism and its relation to white supremacy in America, Professor Benjamin Dennis explains how "the essence of racism is comparison": "whites being proud of being better than others…a delicious feeling of superiority that is inherited at birth...Racism make[s] the 'lowest' whites supreme over the 'highest' Negro."[70] This quote signals how racism is not an inherent value but rather a concept created to enforce racial superiority, and, in extension, justify the harsh treatment of the other race: "society classifies a person's 'superiority' or 'inferiority' as an inborn quality and ensures that the recipients of those labels experience the selfsame quality of life."[71] Ultimately, the settling of Liberia demonstrates how racism in the United States has the ability to infect its victims with a colonial consciousness, leading them to believe in Western civilization's superiority over native culture.[72] After all, Americo-Liberians did not attain true, universal freedom; rather, in their encounter with native cultures, the formerly marginalized groups of

America established their own “mainstream” governments, defining all outliers and disconformities as inferior and unworthy.

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[1] J.Gus Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution of Privilege* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1969).

[2] John-Peter Pham, *Liberia: Portrait of a Failed State* (New York, NY: Reed Press, 2004), 6.

[3] Charles Henry Huberich, *The Political and Legislative History of Liberia* (Clark, NJ: Lawbook Exchange, 2010), xx.

[4] Pham, *Liberia: Portrait*, 6.

[5] Ibid., 19.

[6] Benjamin G. Dennis and Anita K. Dennis, *Slaves to Racism: An Unbroken Chain from America to Liberia* (New York, NY: Algora Pub., 2008), 20.

[7] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 1.

[8] Lawrence S. Kaplan, *Biographies in American Foreign Policy*, vol. 1, *Thomas Jefferson: Westward the Course of Empire* (Wilmington, Del.: SR Books, 1999), 407.

[9] Ibid.

[10] Richard West, *Back to Africa: A History of Sierra Leone and Liberia*, reprint ed. (n.p.: Holt, Rinehart and Winston, 1970), 89.

[11] Kaplan, *Biographies in American*, 407.

[12] Robert Wilson Shufeldt, *The Negro a Menace to American Civilization* (Boston: Gorham Press, 1907), 40.

[13] Huberich, *The Political*, xviii.

[14] Pham, *Liberia: Portrait*, 7.

[15] Huberich, *The Political*, xviii.

[16] West, *Back to Africa*, 88.

[17] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 13.

[18] Averaging over 180 inches between April and October

[19] Huberich, *The Political*, xviii.

[20] Dennis and Dennis, *Slaves to Racism*, 10.

[21] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 2.

[22] Harry Johnston, "Liberia," *The Geographical Journal* 26, no. 2 (August 1905): 960, http://www.jstor.org/stable/1776207.

[23] Louis R. Mehlinger, "The Attitude of the Free Negro toward African Colonization," *The Journal of Negro History* 1, no. 3 (June 1916): 284, http://www.jstor.org/stable/3035624.

[24] Ibid., 283.

[25] Ibid., 278.

[26] Ibid., 291.

[27] Betty J. Gardner, "Opposition to Emigration, a Selected Letter of William Watkins (The Colored Baltimorean)," *The Journal of Negro History* 67, no. 2 (Summer 1982): 156-57, http://www.jstor.org/stable/2717573.

[28] Mehlinger, "The Attitude," 283,286.

[29] Ibid., 283.

[30] Ibid., 290,293.

[31] Ibid., 277.

[32] Ibid., 301.

[33] Ibid.

[34] Ibid., 301.

[35] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 4.

[36] Ibid.

[37] M. B. Akpan, "Black Imperialism: Americo-Liberian Rule over the African Peoples of Liberia, 1841-1964," *Canadian Journal of African Studies* 7, no. 2 (1973): 218, http://www.jstor.org/stable/483540.

[38] Eugene S. Van Sickle, "The U.S. Navy and Liberia, 1819-1845," *Journal of the Early Republic* 31, no. 1 (Spring 2011): 111, http://www.jstor.org/stable/23392621.

[39] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 4.

[40] Van Sickle, "The U.S.," 111.

[41] Ibid., 109.

[42] Ibid., 110.

[43] Robert Wilson Shufeldt, "The U.S. Navy in Connection with the Foundation, Growth and Prosperity of the Republic of Liberia: An Address Delivered before the American Colonization Society," 1877, accessed June 1, 2017, https://catalog.hathitrust.org/Record/010026852/Home.

[44] Ibid.

[45] Ibid.

[46] Akpan, "Black Imperialism," 220.

[47] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 21.

[48] Ibid.,20.

[49] Shufeldt, "The U.S."

[50] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 18.

[51] Dennis and Dennis, *Slaves to Racism*, 56.

[52] Akpan, "Black Imperialism," 220.

[53] Ibid., 225.

[54] Indiana University Bloomington, "The Declaration of Independence," The Liberian Constitutions, accessed May 15, 2017, http://www.onliberia.org/con_declaration.htm.

[55] Dennis and Dennis, *Slaves to Racism*, 9.

[56] Indiana University Bloomington, "The Declaration," The Liberian Constitutions.

[57] Office of the Historian, Bureau of Public Affair of the United States Department of State, "A Guide to the United States' History of Recognition, Diplomatic, and Consular Relations, by Country, since 1776: Liberia," Office of the Historian, accessed May 16, 2017, https://history.state.gov/countries/liberia.

[58] Shufeldt, "The U.S."

[59] Ibid.

[60]Ibid.

[61] Akpan, "Black Imperialism," 221.

[62] Ibid., 231, 232.

[63] Often accounting for the "upkeep of much of the Liberian Government machinery."

[64] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 25.

[65] Akpan, "Black Imperialism," 231.

[66] By 1962, only three percent of the entire Liberian population consisted of "Alien African" or "Non-tribal Affiliated" citizens.

[67] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 25.

[68] Akpan, "Black Imperialism," 230, 233.

[69] Liebenow, *Liberia: The Evolution*, 25.

[70] Dennis and Dennis, *Slaves to Racism*, 207.

[71] Jong-Beom (JB) Lim, "The Atlantic Slave Trade in Northern Senegambia: An Examination of Aristocratic Role in the Rise and Fall of Wolof Societies," *The Concord Review* 27, no. 3 (Spring 2017): 6.

[72] Perry Meyers, "Colonial Consciousness: Rudolf Steiner's Orientalism and German Cultural Identity," *Journal of European Studies* 36, no. 4 (December 1, 2006).

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